

A Review of Beam Polarization, FCC-ee and Polarizer Ring Development

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I. INTRODUCTION

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II. LEP VS. FCC-EE

The Large Electron-Positron Collider (LEP), which operated at CERN between 1989 and 2000, ushered in the era of modern precision electroweak physics and established the benchmark against which the performance goals of the FCC-ee are evaluated¹. LEP initially operated around the Z -resonance before expanding its energy reach past the W -pair production threshold². Through dedicated line-shape scans, compiled in the final combined legacy reports of the LEP collaborations, LEP determined the Z -boson mass and width to $m_Z = 91187.5 \pm 2.1$ MeV and $\Gamma_Z = 2495.2 \pm 2.3$ MeV, respectively^{2,3}. The collider also provided a precise determination of the number of active light neutrino species¹, while measurements of fermion pair-production cross-sections around the Z -pole offered indirect sensitivity to the top-quark mass prior to its discovery². Ultimately, the W -boson mass was measured at LEP to be $m_W = 80.379 \pm 0.012$ GeV.

These precision measurements were made possible by exploiting the natural transverse polarization of the electron and positron beams via a technique known as resonant depolarization (RDP)⁴. RDP allows the spin tune of the beam to be determined by exciting the particles with a transverse oscillating magnetic field until the polarization is destroyed; the frequency of the depolarizing field then directly maps to the spin precession frequency^{4,5}. At LEP, a polarization level of only 5–10% was sufficient for precise energy calibration⁵. However, this technique was fundamentally limited to beam energies below 61 GeV due to the rapid growth of energy spread and spin-orbit resonances observed during high-energy LEP runs^{5–7}. This limitation is mitigated in the FCC-ee layout; its significantly larger bending radius keeps the relative energy spread small enough to preserve beam polarization up to the W -pair threshold, aiming for a W -boson mass measurement precision of 300 keV¹.

The FCC-ee physics programme targets luminosities up to five orders of magnitude greater than those achieved at LEP⁸. Specifically, the Z -pole operational mode is projected to deliver approximately 10^5 times the LEP statistics⁶, enabling profound improvements in the measurement of key

electroweak observables, including the weak mixing angle, W and Z masses, and widths^{8,9}. Current FCC-ee layout studies project uncertainties of approximately 100 keV and 12 keV on the Z mass and width, respectively—representing an order of magnitude improvement over the final LEP results^{4,10}. Fully exploiting this immense statistical data sample requires an equivalent, unprecedented improvement in beam-energy calibration, as well as drastic reductions in theoretical calculation uncertainties to ensure theory errors do not limit the experimental precision¹¹.

Beyond the electroweak arena, the FCC-ee will act as a high-luminosity Higgs and top-quark factory¹². Precise Higgs coupling measurements are vital, as the Higgs boson receives electroweak radiative corrections from heavy Standard Model particles like the top quark^{12,13}. A primary objective of the high-energy operation is a precise threshold scan of the $e^+e^- \rightarrow t\bar{t}$ production cross-section, providing direct sensitivity to the top quark’s mass, width, strong coupling constant, and Yukawa coupling^{9,12}. Collectively, these high-precision measurements form the core strategy of the FCC-ee to probe physics beyond the Standard Model, providing indirect sensitivity to new physics scales approaching 100 TeV^{9,12}.

Achieving these milestones imposes exceptionally demanding requirements on accelerator sub-systems. Because every primary observable is sensitive to systematic shifts in the centre-of-mass energy (E_{CM}), the extreme statistical precision will become entirely dominated by systematic effects unless the beam energies can be determined with a precision significantly surpassing that of the LEP via global Effective Field Theory (EFT) fits^{9,12,14}.

III. THEORETICAL BACKGROUND

A. Beam Optics

The transverse motion of a particle traversing a storage ring resembles that of a linear oscillator subject to periodic focusing. Bending is imposed upon the beam by dipole magnets, whilst focusing is provided by quadrupole magnets, causing each particle to oscillate in the transverse plane about a reference trajectory known as the closed orbit. This oscillatory displacement is governed by Hill’s equation:

$$x''(s) + K(s)x(s) = 0 \quad (1)$$

where $K(s)$ is the periodic focusing strength of the lattice. It is this linear character of the motion that underpins the definition of the beam emittance. The coordinate framework employed consists of three canonically conjugate pairs: (x, p_x)

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and (y, p_y) for the transverse phase space, where p_x and p_y are the transverse momenta normalised by the reference momentum P_0 , and (z, δ) for the longitudinal phase space, where z denotes the longitudinal position relative to the reference particle and δ is the fractional energy deviation. In the absence of synchrotron radiation, particle motion is symplectic: the phase-space area enclosed by the beam distribution, termed the emittance, is conserved under transport. This conservation is expressed by the condition $R^T S R = S$, where R is the one-turn transfer matrix and S is the symplectic form. The transverse oscillations of a particle, referred to as betatron motion, trace an ellipse in phase space whose shape is determined by the Twiss parameters (α, β, γ) , which describe the size and angular divergence of the particle distribution at a given location in the ring. The Twiss parameters serve to decouple the machine optics from the beam properties, permitting the lattice functions to be factored from a single amplitude parameter. The action variable J characterises the stable, periodic motion of an individual circulating particle and is defined in terms of the Twiss parameters as

$$2J_x = \gamma_x x^2 + 2\alpha_x x p_x + \beta_x p_x^2 \quad (2)$$

The emittance is subsequently given by the ensemble average of the action, $\epsilon_x = \langle J_x \rangle$, and is invariant under any radiation-free linear transport. The number of betatron oscillations completed per revolution defines the betatron tune,

$$\nu = \frac{1}{2\pi} \oint \frac{1}{\beta(s)} ds \quad (3)$$

Tunes at integer or half-integer values must be avoided, as periodic perturbations at these resonances accumulate coherently over successive turns and may lead to beam loss. This description of transverse motion is supplemented by the concept of dispersion, which accounts for the dependence of the closed orbit upon particle energy: a particle with a fractional energy offset δ circulates on a displaced closed orbit relative to the reference trajectory. As a consequence, the path length becomes energy dependent, and a momentum compaction factor α_p is acquired. Energy deviations are converted into transverse displacements through the dispersion function,

$$x_\delta(s) = D(s)\delta \quad (4)$$

This constitutes the mechanism by which the beam becomes coupled to its spatial distribution and, subsequently, to its spin distribution. The transverse emittance and relative energy spread are determined by the equilibrium between synchrotron radiation damping and quantum excitation, yielding a beam size of

$$\sigma(s) = \sqrt{\epsilon\beta(s) + (D(s)\sigma_\delta)^2} \quad (5)$$

Since the beam size is proportional to the energy spread, the FCC-ee, operating at exceptionally high beam energies, is expected to exhibit a large energy spread, with significant consequences for depolarisation.

B. Spin Motion and Tune in Storage Rings

As an electron or positron travels around an accelerator, its spin doesn't stay aligned with the guiding field, as it precesses at a different rate to the orbit revolution. Its motion is described by the Thomas-BMT equation¹⁵ which originates from the combination of the Larmor and Thomas precession into a single precession vector¹⁶, described by:

$$\boldsymbol{\Omega} = (1 + G\gamma)\mathbf{B}_\perp + (1 + G)\mathbf{B}_\parallel + \left(\frac{1}{\gamma+1} + G\right)\gamma\frac{\mathbf{E} \times \boldsymbol{\beta}}{c} \quad (6)$$

¹⁷ where $\mathbf{B}_\parallel$ and $\mathbf{B}_\perp$ are the magnetic field components parallel and perpendicular to the velocity $\boldsymbol{\beta}$, G is the gyromagnetic anomaly, and γ is the Lorentz factor. the $\mathbf{E} \times \boldsymbol{\beta}$ term is usually negligible in circular accelerators since RF cavity fields run parallel to the velocity, leaving the much simpler

$$\boldsymbol{\Omega} \approx (1 + G\gamma)\mathbf{B}_\perp + (1 + G)\mathbf{B}_\parallel \quad (7)$$

for most practical purposes.^{17,18}

This precession arises because a particle's magnetic moment, itself proportional to its spin, experiences a torque when placed in a magnetic field. Any magnetic moment residing in a magnetic field experiences a torque that causes it to precess around the field instead of aligning with it¹⁷. The bending and focusing magnets in the storage ring are what keep the beam circulating, therefore the spin is continually subject to this torque¹⁷. Importantly, the rate of this precession is not tied to the rate of orbital revolution: it depends on the gyromagnetic anomaly $a = (g - 2)/2$, a fixed property of the particle species itself^{15,17}. A second, independent contribution comes from Thomas precession, a purely relativistic effect arising because the particle's own rest frame continuously rotates as it is bent around the ring^{15,17}.

Specialising this result to the simplest case of a particle passing through a single bending magnet, where $B_\perp$ dominates, Berglund's derivation for HERA gives the orbit-deflection relation directly¹⁸:

$$\delta\theta_{spin} = (1 + a\gamma)\delta\theta_{orbit} \quad (8)$$

For every degree the momentum vector turns through the bend, the spin turns by $(1 + a\gamma)$ degrees more than the orbit, by a factor that grows with beam energy. Since $a\gamma$ is never an integer at a real beam energy, the spin doesn't return to its original orientation after one turn; it advances to a new phase with each revolution¹⁸.

The excess precession defines the spin tune $\nu = a\gamma$, the number of spin precessions per orbital revolution, evaluated in the frame moving with the particle^{17,19}. The relationship between spin tune and electron energy is linear, making it incredibly useful in the RDP process as the beam energy can be determined directly^{17,20}.

IV. RADIATIVE POLARIZATION

A. Self Polarization and the Sokolov-Ternov Effect

Polarization is a quantity representative of the particle ensemble rather than a single-particle spin, and describes the degree to which particles align along a specified direction. It is defined as

$$P = \frac{N_{\uparrow} - N_{\downarrow}}{N_{\uparrow} + N_{\downarrow}} \quad (9)$$

where...¹⁷

The definition is built for 1/2-spin systems so it is implicitly scoped to electrons/positrons^{17,21}.

Radiative spin polarization was first predicted theoretically by Sokolov and Ternov, who derived an asymptotic polarization limit of $P_0 = 8/(5\sqrt{3}) \approx 92.4\%$ for an idealised uniform field²². This prediction was confirmed experimentally within a decade: the first observations of radiative polarization were made at the VEPP-2 storage ring at Novosibirsk and at the ACO ring in Orsay, with later runs at the improved VEPP-2M and ACO approaching the theoretical limit^{21,23}. Real machines, however, rarely reach this asymptotic value — SPEAR II, for instance, achieved an equilibrium polarization of only about 76% at 3.7GeV²⁴, and, as mentioned in Section I, LEP itself operated with a transverse polarization around 10%.

The spontaneous build-up of polarization arises directly from synchrotron radiation and spin-flip asymmetry^{22,25}.

When electrons, or positrons, move on the curved orbits set by a storage ring's magnetic guide fields, they continuously emit synchrotron radiation; calculating the relevant transition rates using exact Dirac wavefunctions for an electron in a homogeneous magnetic field reveals that a very small fraction of these emitted photons are accompanied by a spin-flip: a transition between the "up" and "down" quantum states of the electron's spin relative to the field^{18,20,22}.

Crucially, the two spin transition rates are not equal²²:

$$W_{\uparrow\downarrow} = \frac{5\sqrt{3}}{16} \frac{e^2 \gamma^5 \hbar}{m_e^2 c^2 |\rho|^3} \left(1 + \frac{8}{5\sqrt{3}} \right) \quad (10)$$

$$W_{\downarrow\uparrow} = \frac{5\sqrt{3}}{16} \frac{e^2 \gamma^5 \hbar}{m_e^2 c^2 |\rho|^3} \left(1 - \frac{8}{5\sqrt{3}} \right) \quad (11)$$

Intuitively, $W_{\uparrow\downarrow} > W_{\downarrow\uparrow}$ always due to the change in sign. For electrons, this asymmetry favours the down-state, causing polarization build-up anti-parallel to the field, and vice versa for positrons²¹.

Sokolov and Ternov derived this asymmetry from the Dirac equation and demonstrated that the radiated intensity depends on the initial spin orientation relative to the field^{21,22}. Their method involved tracking spin populations against the field (n_1) and along the field (n_2) under the equation

$$\frac{dn_1}{dt} = n_2 \omega_{21} - n_1 \omega_{12} \quad (12)$$

which demonstrated that the population ratio relaxes to a fixed value, originally calculated to be $\approx 95\%$ polarization.²²

Starting with an unpolarized beam, the unequal flip rates steadily skew the spin population towards the favoured state until the rate of flips reaches an equilibrium.^{22,26}

This relaxation follows the exponential law²⁷:

$$P_{ST}(t) = P_{eq,ST}(1 - e^{-t/\tau_{ST}}) \quad (13)$$

where equilibrium polarization is set by the ratio of the transition rates^{21,22}:

$$P_{eq,ST} = \frac{W_{\uparrow\downarrow} - W_{\downarrow\uparrow}}{W_{\uparrow\downarrow} + W_{\downarrow\uparrow}} = \frac{8}{5\sqrt{3}} = 0.9238 \quad (14)$$

Although one spin-flip direction is preferred, the other will always be present, meaning that equilibrium polarization can never be 100%²¹.

The build-up time τ_{ST} is the characteristic timescale over which this equilibrium is approached, and is given by the sum of the transition rates^{21,22}:

$$\tau_{ST}^{-1} = \frac{5\sqrt{3}}{8} \frac{e^2 \gamma^5 \hbar}{m_e^2 c^2 |\rho|^3} \quad (15)$$

The γ^5/ρ^3 scaling means that build-up is dramatically faster at higher energies and stronger bending. Additionally, the resulting timescale for polarization build-up is large compared to every other process in the ring, such as radiation damping or synchro-betatron oscillations¹⁸.

The FCC-ee, with its large circumference, naturally needs a comparatively moderate bending against a smaller ring reaching the same energy²⁸. Therefore, this gentler bending increases the natural polarization build-up time to much larger timescales (≈ 200 hours) compared to previous lepton colliders⁵. This motivates alternative methods for polarization through a separate, dedicated storage ring.

B. Realistic Polarization Models

The Sokolov-Ternov effect assumes a perfectly homogeneous field without any depolarizing effects²⁷. Realistically, storage rings will exhibit depolarization arising from orbital oscillations and inconsistent guide fields. Therefore, other formalisms need to be incorporated to successfully measure polarization parameters.

In a realistic scenario, energy lost to synchrotron radiation is compensated, in the longitudinal plane, by RF cavities, with each photon emission being a stochastic, discrete event partnered with a sudden change in the electron's energy and orbit distortion¹⁸. These stochastic precessions arise from the $\omega \cdot \hat{s} \times \hat{b}$ term of the Thomas-BMT equation¹⁸.

Quantum fluctuations limiting achievable polarization was first theoretically predicted by Baier and Orlov²⁹ and was experimentally confirmed by the observation of radiative de-

polarization at the ACO storage ring in Orsay, where polarization was measured by the spin dependent cross-section of Coulomb scattering³⁰.

With these amendments in mind, polarization becomes a competition between radiation damping and quantum fluctuations where the balance between them represents the net polarization.

Baier, Katkov, and Strakhovenko generalised the Sokolov-Ternov calculation to account for depolarization along the closed orbit³¹.

The equilibrium polarization takes the form³¹,

$$P_{BKS} = P_{ST} \frac{\oint \frac{\hat{n}_0(s) \cdot \hat{b}(s)}{|\rho(s)|^3} ds}{\oint \frac{1 - \frac{2}{9}(\hat{n}_0 \cdot \hat{s})^2}{|\rho(s)|^3} ds}, \quad \vec{P}_{BKS} = -P_{BKS} \hat{n}_0 \quad (16)$$

with the build-up rate,

$$\tau_{BKS}^{-1} = \frac{5\sqrt{3}}{8} \frac{e^2 \gamma^5 \hbar}{m_e^2 c^2 C} \oint \frac{1 - \frac{2}{9}(\hat{n}_0 \cdot \hat{s})^2}{|\rho(s)|^3} ds \quad (17)$$

$\hat{n}_0(s)$ is the invariant spin field on the closed orbit. Instead of polarization building up in one direction, it builds up along a direction that can vary around the ring, defined as the unique periodic solution of the Thomas-BMT equation along the closed orbit³¹.

In a perfectly planar ring, $\hat{n}_0$ remains vertical, but if a ring contains vertical bends, for example spin rotators used to produce longitudinal polarization, there are regions where $\hat{n}_0$ tilts away from the vertical and prevents radiative depolarization from reaching the asymptotic limit¹⁸.

The Derbenev-Kondratenko formalism extends the picture further, involving realistic betatron and synchrotron oscillations around the closed orbit²⁷. Centrally, it uses the invariant spin field $(\vec{u}; s)$ which is a generalisation of $\hat{n}_0(s)$ for the full phase space. It is a periodic unit vector satisfying $\hat{n}(\vec{u}; s) = \hat{n}(\vec{u}; s + C)$ which obeys the Thomas-BMT equation through an entire field transformation instead of a single particle¹⁸.

Because Thomas-BMT precession is so much faster than either radiation damping or the radiative spin processes, a particle's spin effectively locks onto the local $\hat{n}$ direction long before radiation has time to meaningfully disturb it which allows the slow radiative competition between build-up and diffusion to be analysed as a perturbation on top of this fast, deterministic precession, rather than needing to be solved simultaneously with it.¹⁶

The resulting equilibrium polarization formula is:

$$P_{DK} = P_{ST} \frac{\left\langle \oint \frac{1}{|\rho(s)|^3} \hat{b} \cdot \left(\hat{n} - \frac{\partial \hat{n}}{\partial \delta} \right) ds \right\rangle_s}{\left\langle \oint \frac{1}{|\rho(s)|^3} \left[1 - \frac{2}{9}(\hat{n} \cdot \hat{s})^2 + \frac{11}{18} \left(\frac{\partial \hat{n}}{\partial \delta} \right)^2 \right] ds \right\rangle_s},$$

$$\langle \vec{P}_{DK} \rangle_{ens} = P_{DK} \langle \hat{n} \rangle_s \quad (18)$$

The Derbenev-Kondratenko formula differs from the Baier-Katkov-Strakhovenko result in two ways: $\hat{n}_0$ is replaced by the full phase-space invariant spin field $\hat{n}$, and new terms involving $\partial \hat{n} / \partial \delta$ appear throughout, this partial derivative measures how sharply the invariant spin direction changes in response to the fractional energy jumps δ that accompany each photon emission.¹⁸

This term demonstrates that, even if a particle has a small orbital amplitude, it can suffer significant depolarization in an area where $\hat{n}$ is highly sensitive to small energy changes, for example near a spin resonance.

Together, Baier-Katkov-Strakhovenko and Derbenev-Kondratenko theory move the prediction of achievable polarization from Sokolov-Ternov's single, idealised number to a machine-specific calculation that accounts for the real, inhomogeneous lattice. Both formalisms reduce to the same Sokolov-Ternov limit in the appropriate idealisation, but diverge from it wherever the lattice or the particle's orbital amplitude pushes $\hat{n}$ away from vertical becomes increasingly common at higher beam energies as the density of depolarizing resonances grows.

This formalism remains an active area of research directly relevant to FCC-ee. A recent reformulation of the Derbenev-Kondratenko approach has been explicitly validated for storage rings with a wide range of energies, extending the original 1973 theory with corrections and providing estimates of its reliability at FCC-ee-relevant energies³².

C. Spin Orbit Resonances

V. POLARIZATION AT FCC-EE ENERGIES

VI. THE POLARIZER RING

VII. RESEARCH PROJECT

VIII. SUMMARY

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